Change Detection

IRS Chapter 15

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Quiz references: **Change Detection: Interpreting Bitemporal and Multitemporal Evidence** (Week 10).

Introduction to Change Detection in Remote Sensing

- **Change detection**: Identifies changes in surface features over time.
- Key applications:
  - Land use change
  - Vegetation monitoring
  - Environmental management

Bitemporal vs. Multitemporal Change Detection

- **Bitemporal Detection**:
  - Compares images from two specific dates.
  - Suitable for detecting abrupt changes.
- **Multitemporal Detection**:
  - Analyzes multiple dates for trend analysis.
  - Ideal for gradual or seasonal changes.
- Increasingly accessible data enables broader applications.

Conditions for Effective Change Detection

1. Compatible sensors, acquisition times, pixel sizes, and viewing angles.
2. Similar seasons and vegetation growth stages.
3. Accurate co-registration, preferably within 0.2 pixels (Dai and Khorram, 1999).
4. No clouds or cloud shadows in the analysis area.
5. Convert to top-of-atmosphere (TOA), preferably bottom-of-atmosphere (BOA / surface), reflectance. Atmospheric scattering and absorption can mimic surface change; TOA alone does not remove them.
6. Exclude irrelevant conditions: soil moisture differences when studying canopy cover, or different harvest dates when studying long-term vegetation change.

Preprocessing Steps for Change Detection

This is the preparation checklist before the visual and numerical comparisons that follow.

- **Calibrate**: Convert sensor measurements to compatible radiometric units.
- **Co-register**: Align corresponding ground locations on a common pixel grid.
- **Correct reflectance**: TOA normalizes illumination geometry; BOA additionally estimates atmospheric effects to recover surface reflectance.
- **Mask clouds and shadows**: Exclude obscured pixels rather than inventing surface observations.
- **Control other variation**: Match season and moisture conditions; normalization must not erase the change being studied.

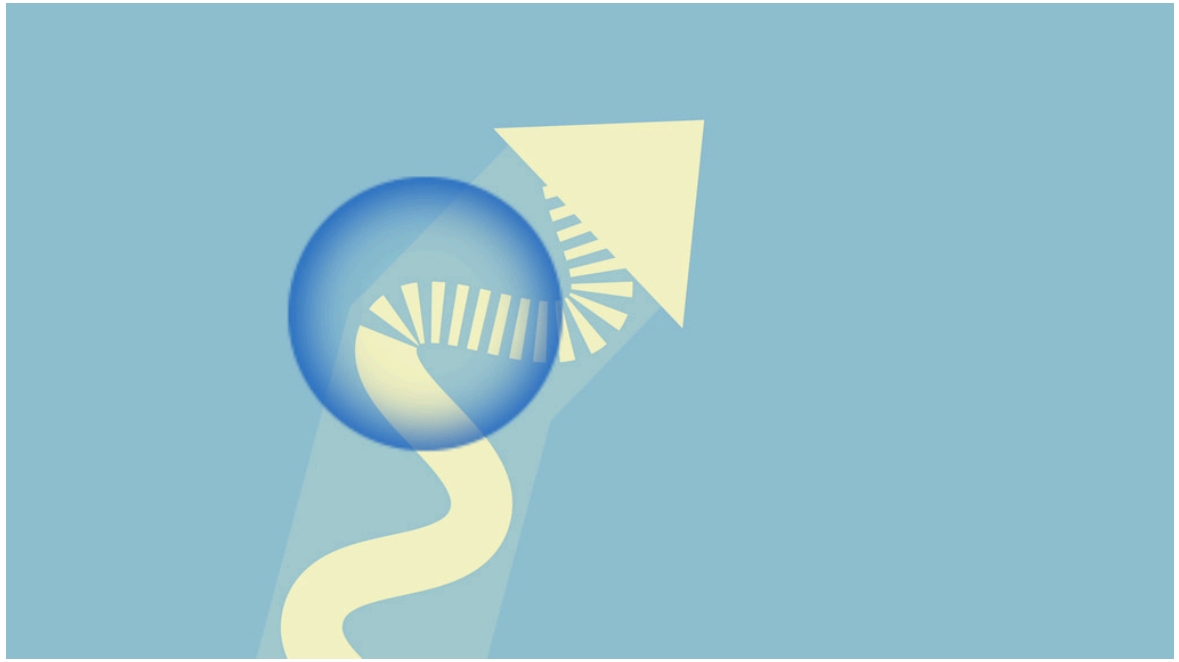
Why Atmospheric Correction Matters

Scattering adds light from outside the target; absorption changes the measured spectrum.

TOA reflectance still contains atmospheric effects. BOA / surface reflectance corrects estimated atmospheric contributions, with residual uncertainty.

Use the same processing level on both dates. Haze differences can mimic NDVI change without land-cover change.

NASA SVS: Landsat 9 Atmospheric Correction, visualization 20340.



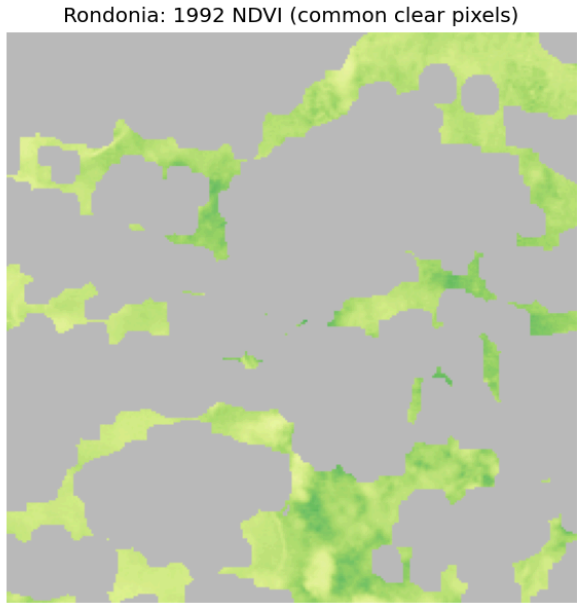
Visual Interpretation in Change Detection

Start with the paired images before choosing a numerical method. The next examples compare the same ground locations at two dates.

- **Multidate Color Composite**: Combines bands from two dates.
- **Image Swiping/Flickering**: Overlay images for change visualization.
- **Side-by-Side Comparison**: View images in parallel for analysis.
- **Heads-Up Digitizing**: Manually identify and classify changes.

Image Swiping/Flickering Example

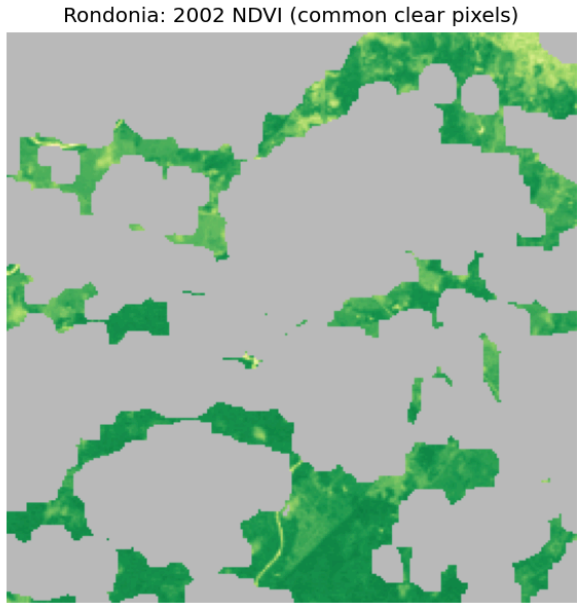
Rondonia, Brazil: Landsat 5 TM surface-reflectance NDVI, 1992-03-10



Common valid pixels only (24.3%); identical NDVI scale [-1, 1]; registration unverified

Image Swiping/Flickering Example

Rondonia, Brazil: Landsat 5 TM surface-reflectance NDVI, 2002-02-02



Common valid pixels only (24.3%); identical NDVI scale [-1, 1]; registration unverified

Image Swiping/Flickering Example

Advance and reverse the previous two slides, or open the animated flicker.

Both dates use the same common-pixel mask, geometry, and display stretch. Grey areas are excluded because either date is invalid.

These are real 1992 and 2002 scenes near Ariquemes, but not the textbook's undocumented exact scenes or crop. The March/February mismatch and unverified Tier 2 registration prevent interpreting every difference as deforestation.

Linear Algebra Notation and Inner Product

- **Vectors** in **bold**: e.g., $\mathbf{x}$ represents a vector.
- **Inner Product**: Measures similarity of vectors $\mathbf{x}$ and $\mathbf{y}$.

$$\mathbf{x}^T\mathbf{y} = \sum_{i=1}^{n} x_i y_i$$

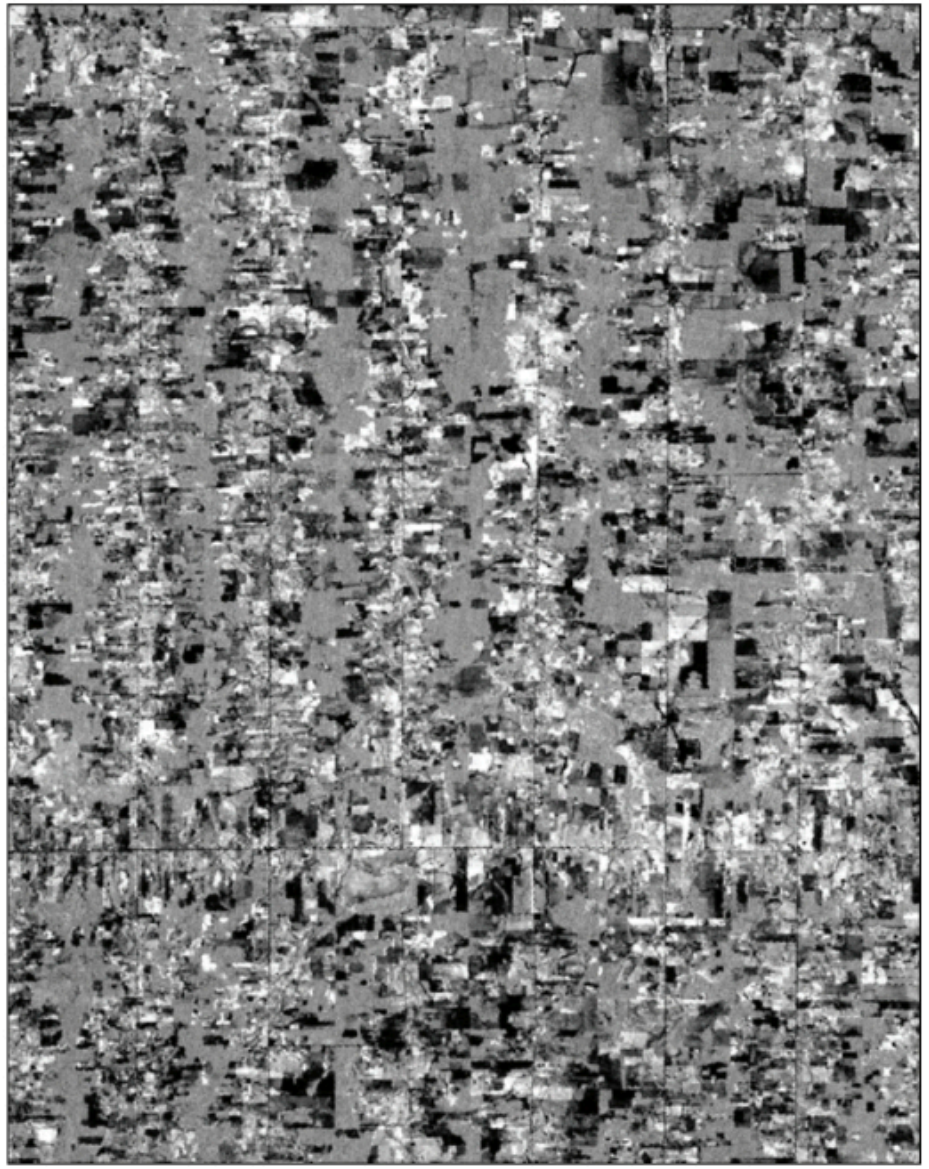
- Other names for this: ***Scaler Product***, ***Dot Product***
- Other notation $\mathbf{x} \cdot \mathbf{y}$, $\langle \mathbf{x}, \mathbf{y} \rangle$
- **Geometric Interpretation**:
  - $\mathbf{x}^T\mathbf{y} = \|\mathbf{x}\|\|\mathbf{y}\| \cos\theta$
  - Measures **projection** of $\mathbf{x}$ onto $\mathbf{y}$.
  - $\cos\theta$ gives the angle between vectors.

Image Algebra for Change Detection

- **Image Differencing**: Subtract pixel values between dates.
- **Image Ratioing**: Divide pixel values across dates. (Less sensitive to lighting & atmosphere)
- **Euclidean Distance**: Measures spectral distance.

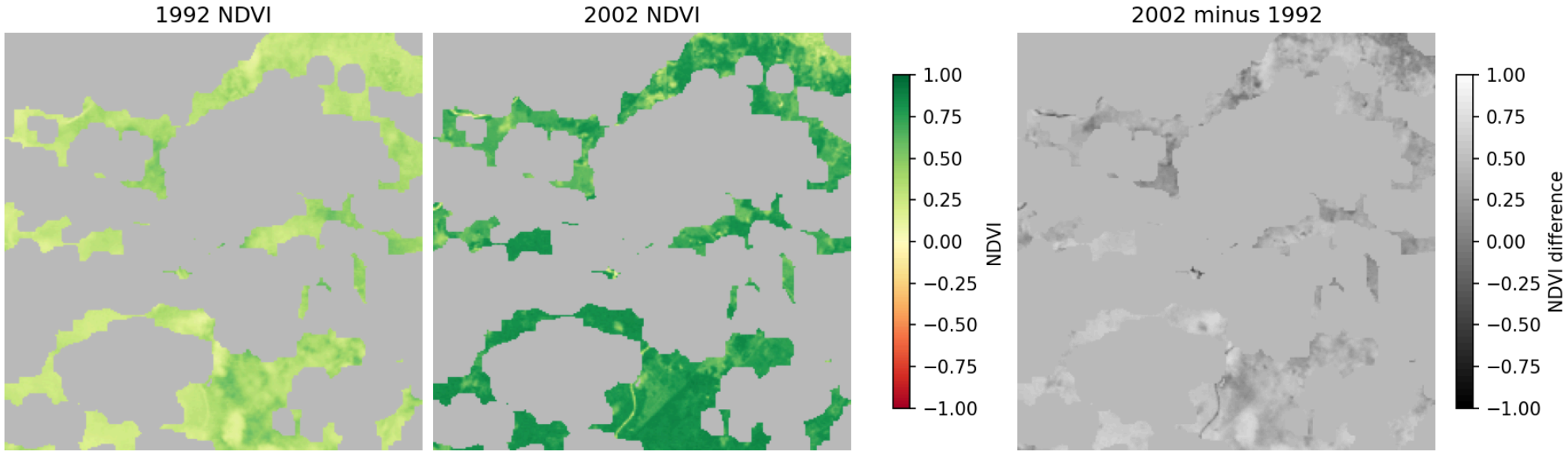
$$D = \|\mathbf{x}_1 - \mathbf{x}_2\|_2 = \sqrt{(\mathbf{x}_1 - \mathbf{x}_2)^T(\mathbf{x}_1 - \mathbf{x}_2)}$$

> The figure shows NDVI difference (brighter(+) = increase in vegetation, darker(-)= decrease, gray=no change)



Reproducing the Calculation in Figure 15.1

$$\mathrm{NDVI}_t = \frac{\rho_{NIR,t} - \rho_{red,t}}{\rho_{NIR,t} + \rho_{red,t}}, \qquad \Delta\mathrm{NDVI} = \mathrm{NDVI}_{2002} - \mathrm{NDVI}_{1992}$$



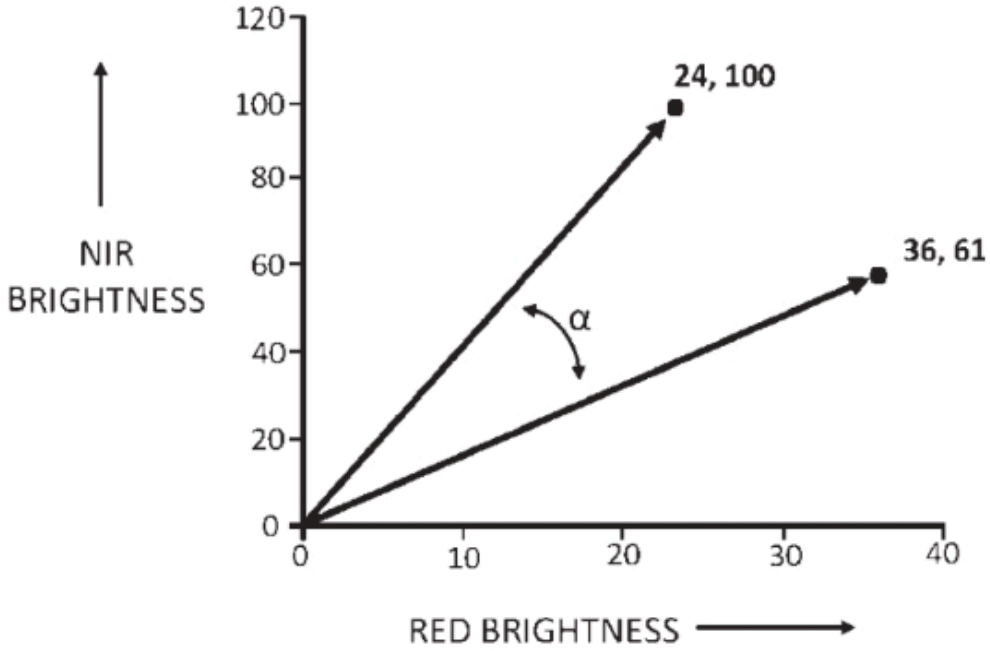
Brighter = NDVI increase; darker = decrease. Masked pixels are light grey. This reproduces the **method and years/region**, not the original footprint. Clouds leave 24.3% common coverage.

Run the focused Colab notebook

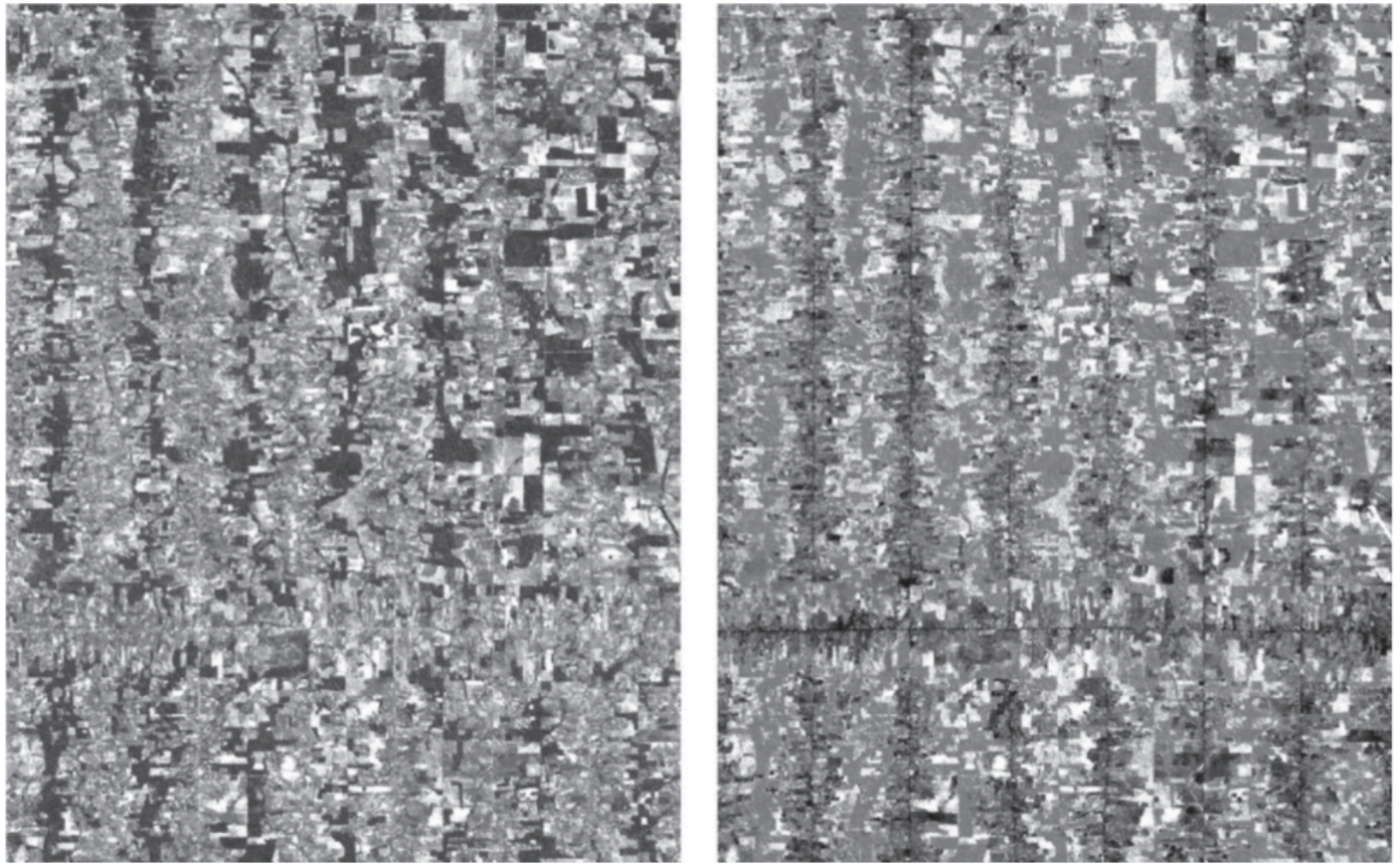
Change Vector Analysis (CVA)

- **Magnitude**: Size of the multispectral change vector.
- **Direction**: Which bands increased or decreased; useful for interpreting change.
- Spectral angle is a separate similarity measure, not CVA's change-vector magnitude.

$$\Delta \mathbf{x} = \mathbf{x}_{t_2} - \mathbf{x}_{t_1}, \qquad \|\Delta \mathbf{x}\|_2 = \sqrt{\sum_{b=1}^{B} (x_{t_2,b} - x_{t_1,b})^2}$$



Change Vector Analysis (CVA)



(LEFT) Euclidean distance, (RIGHT) Spectral Angle Measurment

Why didn't the book include the the source images? 🤦

Transformation and Data Reduction

Review from **Image Statistics and Preprocessing**, textbook Chapter 11: PCA and Tasseled Cap (Equation 11.9).

$$\begin{bmatrix} B \\ G \\ W \end{bmatrix} = \mathbf{C}_{\text{sensor,product}}\boldsymbol{\rho}, \qquad B = \sum_b c_{B,b}\rho_b, \quad G = \sum_b c_{G,b}\rho_b, \quad W = \sum_b c_{W,b}\rho_b$$

Use the **same coefficients and band order** on both dates, matched to the sensor and reflectance product. Brightness, greenness, and wetness are fixed axes; PCA axes depend on the fit.

$$\Delta G = G_{2002} - G_{1992}, \qquad \mathbf{z} = \mathbf{P}^T(\boldsymbol{\rho} - \boldsymbol{\mu})$$

PCA Review: One Shared Coordinate System

Previously covered: pixels are samples, bands are features. Fit one rotation to both dates; independently fitted PC1 axes need not represent the same direction.

```
from sklearn.decomposition import PCA
import numpy as np

# Each array contains valid pixels by bands, in the same band order.
model = PCA(n_components=3)
model.fit(np.vstack([pixels_1992, pixels_2002]))
pc_1992 = model.transform(pixels_1992)
pc_2002 = model.transform(pixels_2002)
pc_difference = pc_2002 - pc_1992
```

PCA maximizes variance, not change relevance. Inspect what each component represents before interpreting its difference.

Classification in Change Detection

The output is a **spatial label map**, with a class assigned to each valid pixel or segment.

- **Postclassification comparison**: classify each date separately, producing two land-cover maps. Compare labels to produce transitions such as forest-to-forest or forest-to-pasture.
- **Direct change classification**: concatenate both dates' bands and train on transition labels, producing one transition map directly.
- **Targeted attribution**: first detect changed locations; classify the transition only there. Retain unchanged and invalid locations as separate states.

Choosing the labels is part of defining the task. Binary change and named transitions answer different questions.

What Classification Produces

Product	What a pixel or entry means
Binary change raster	0 = unchanged, 1 = changed; invalid pixels are nodata, not 0
Transition raster	A class ID such as forest-to-pasture; the legend defines each ID
Optional class probabilities	One probability per modeled class; uncertain predictions need review
Transition-area table	Counts or areas for each before/after pair, summarized from the map
Confusion matrix	Predicted labels versus independent reference labels at sampled locations

A transition table compares **date 1 with date 2**. A confusion matrix compares **prediction with reference**, not the two dates. It evaluates a map; it is not the mapped product.

Spatial Statistics: What Are the Samples?

For this bitemporal example, choose **one band and one region** containing n corresponding valid pixels. Let $x_{t,p}$ be the value at date t and location p.

$$\bar{x}_t = \frac{1}{n}\sum_{p=1}^{n} x_{t,p}, \qquad s_t = \sqrt{\frac{\sum_{p=1}^{n}(x_{t,p} - \bar{x}_t)^2}{n-1}}$$

- s_1: spatial variation among the region's pixels on date 1.
- s_2: spatial variation among the **same locations** on date 2.
- Each is **one number for this region**, not one number per observed pixel and not variation through time at one pixel.

Require at least two valid paired locations. Keep the same mask on both dates.

Correlation Is Not a Change Map

Compare corresponding values in one band within a segment or neighborhood.

$$extcov_{12} = \frac{\sum_{p=1}^{n}(x_{1,p} - \bar{x}_1)(x_{2,p} - \bar{x}_2)}{n-1}$$

$$r = \frac{\mathrm{cov}_{12}}{s_1 s_2}$$

- s_1, s_2 are sample standard deviations; dividing by their product removes units and normalizes covariance to $-1 \leq r \leq 1$ when both are nonzero.
- The bound follows from Cauchy-Schwarz for centered vectors. A constant-valued segment has undefined correlation.
- Adding 0.1 to every pixel leaves correlation unchanged: similar spatial variation does not mean equal reflectance.

Where Do Those Statistics Go on a Map?

- **One whole-image region**: one s_1, s_2, covariance, and r for the image. No spatial localization.
- **Many segments**: one set per segment; assign each segment its result to make a segment-statistic map.
- **Moving window**: repeat around each center pixel and store its result there. A raster value describes its neighborhood, not an isolated pixel.

Example: three locations have values $[1, 2, 3]$ then $[2, 3, 4]$. Both SDs are 1, covariance is 1, and $r = 1$, yet every value increased by 1.

With **many dates at one fixed pixel**, temporal SD is possible, but that is a different sample axis and a different analysis. Two values at a single pixel do not provide a useful correlation-based change test.

Multitemporal Change Detection: Benefits

- **Enhanced Change Detection**: Detects low-magnitude trends.
- **Gradual Change Capture**: Monitors slow processes (e.g., vegetation growth).
- **Aligned with Socioeconomic Cycles**: Annual analysis supports policy planning.

Multitemporal Change Detection: Challenges

- **Cloud Cover**: Persistent clouds complicate analysis.
- **Data Volume**: Large datasets require robust processing.
- **Phenological Effects**: Seasonal changes can obscure results.

Coming Next: Preparing a Time Series

Roadmap: first handle missing observations and unwanted variation, then fit seasonal behavior and monitor departures.

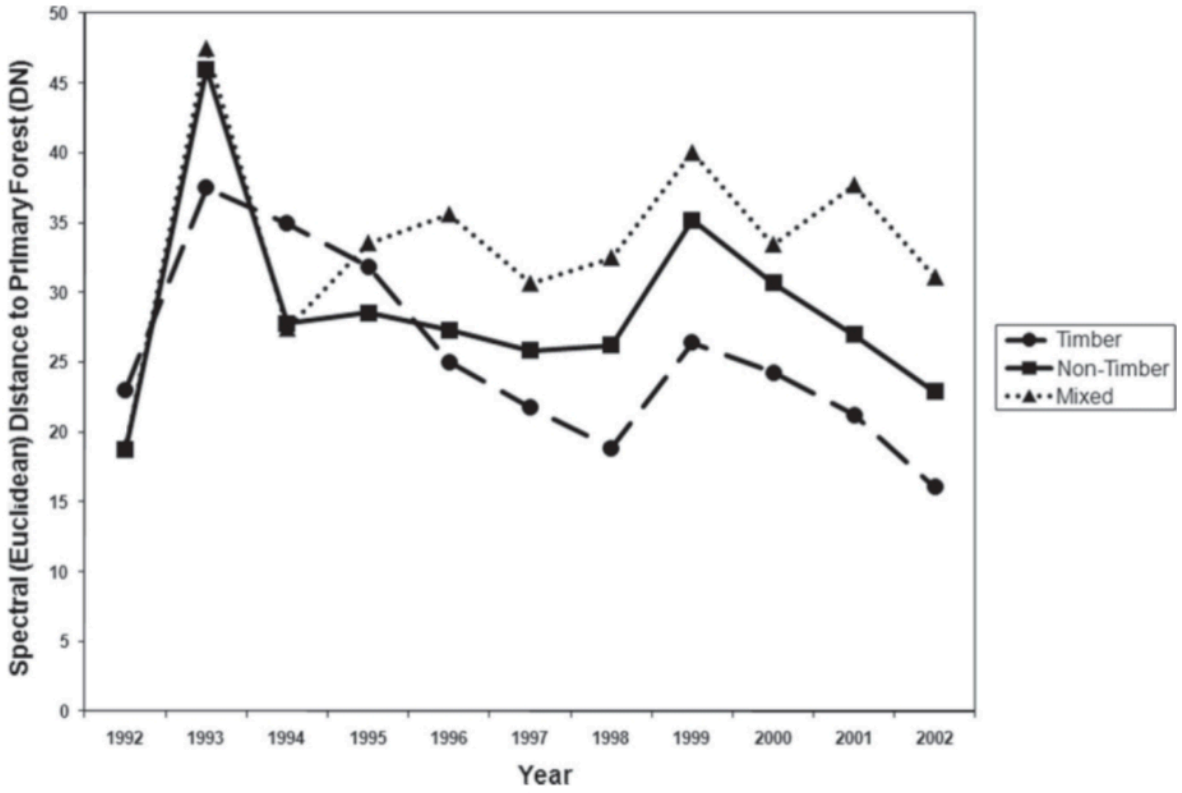
- **Take Care Collecting Images**: Aim for the same season and time of day.
- **Image Co-Registration**: Align ground locations; histogram matching is radiometric normalization, not registration.
- **Cloud Removal**: Manual and automated techniques.
- **Image Normalization**: Adjusts for atmospheric or seasonal variance.
- **Segmentation (optional)**: Groups pixels with similar trajectories.
- **Band Selection (optional)**: Focus on a single band or derived value to simplify analysis.

Cloud Cover Analysis in Multitemporal Change Detection

- **Challenge**: Cloud cover limits clear imagery, especially with one image per year.
- **Image Selection**: Choose the clearest annual image available.
- **Gap Handling Options**: (To fill the hole left when clouds are removed)
  - **Pixel Interpolation**: Use nearby pixels in the same image.
  - **Date Interpolation**: Use nearby dates' images for missing areas.
  - Keep missing observations explicit; interpolation can hide abrupt changes.

EWMA = exponentially weighted moving average. It averages new observations with a running history, giving recent observations more weight. This helps detect small, persistent departures that a noisy single observation could hide. It monitors available observations; it does not fill cloud gaps. We derive it later in the control-chart section.

Example from the book....



Mean spectral distance from primary forest by agroforestry group

Time Series Analysis Basics

Roadmap for this section: we will work through basis-function regression, then seasonal harmonics and residual monitoring. Top-down and bottom-up methods are alternatives listed for context, not derived here.

- **Kernel Regression**: Linear combination of basis functions.
- **Top-Down Methods**: Whole-series approximation, then partition.
- **Bottom-Up Methods**: Builds larger structures from smaller ones.

Least Squares (LS) Solution for Basis Functions

- **Goal**: Minimize error between observed values $ y $ and model predictions $\hat{y}$.
- **Model Representation**: Express $\hat{y}_x$ as a sum of basis functions:

$$\hat{y}_x = a_0 f_0(x) + a_1 f_1(x) + \cdots + a_n f_n(x)$$

- **Objective**: Find coefficients a_i that minimize the sum of squared residuals.

Example: Monomial Basis Functions in LS Solution

- **Monomial Basis Functions**: Use powers of x: $1, x, x^2, x^3$.
  - $f_i(x) = x^i$
- **Observations:** $\{(x_i, y_i) \mid \quad i = 1 \ldots m\}$
  - Note I use x rather thant t, whatever!
- **Three Cases**:
  - **Underdetermined**: Fewer points than functions (insufficient data).
  - **Exactly Determined**: Same number of points as functions.
  - **Overdetermined**: More points than functions (more data than needed).

Setting Up the Matrix for LS Solution

- **Matrix Setup**: Each element (i, j) is $f_j(x_i)$.

$$\mathbf{A} = \begin{bmatrix} f_0(x_1) & f_1(x_1) & \dots & f_n(x_1) \\ f_0(x_2) & f_1(x_2) & \dots & f_n(x_2) \\ \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\ f_0(x_m) & f_1(x_m) & \dots & f_n(x_m) \end{bmatrix}$$

- **Objective**: Solve $\mathbf{Aa} = \mathbf{y}$ for coefficients $\mathbf{a}$.

Solving with the Normal Equations

- **Normal Equations**: Used when the system is overdetermined.

$$\mathbf{A}^T\mathbf{A}\mathbf{a} = \mathbf{A}^T\mathbf{y}$$

- **Interpretation**: Projects $\mathbf{y}$ onto the space spanned by the basis functions.
- **Underdetermined Systems**: Require additional constraints or regularization.

$$(\mathbf{A}^T\mathbf{A} + \lambda\mathbf{I})\mathbf{a} = \mathbf{A}^T\mathbf{y}$$

Harmonic Basis Functions

- **Cosine and Sine Functions** as Basis:

$$\hat{\rho}_x = a_0 + a_1 \cos\left(\frac{2\pi}{T}x\right) + a_2 \sin\left(\frac{2\pi}{T}x\right)$$

- **Periodicity**: Fits seasonal changes in time series data.
- **Coefficients** a_0, a_1, a_2: Control the overall value and seasonal oscillation.
- T **(Period)**: Defines the cycle length, e.g., $T = 365$ for annual data.

Solving for Harmonic Coefficients

- **Objective**: Minimize the sum of squared residuals between observed data y_x and model predictions $\hat{\rho}_x$.
- **Set Up**: Rewrite model as a matrix equation.

$$\begin{bmatrix} 1 & \cos\left(\frac{2\pi}{T}x_1\right) & \sin\left(\frac{2\pi}{T}x_1\right) \\ 1 & \cos\left(\frac{2\pi}{T}x_2\right) & \sin\left(\frac{2\pi}{T}x_2\right) \\ \vdots & \vdots & \vdots \\ 1 & \cos\left(\frac{2\pi}{T}x_n\right) & \sin\left(\frac{2\pi}{T}x_n\right) \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} a_0 \\ a_1 \\ a_2 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} y_1 \\ y_2 \\ \vdots \\ y_n \end{bmatrix}$$

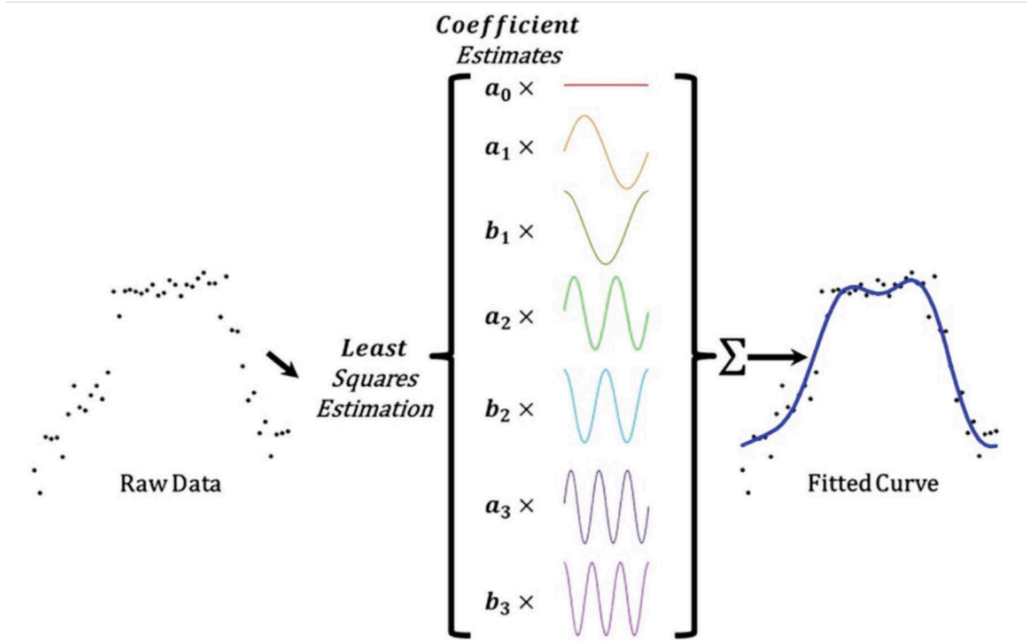
- **Solution**: Use normal equations: $\mathbf{A}^T\mathbf{A}\mathbf{a} = \mathbf{A}^T\mathbf{y}$.

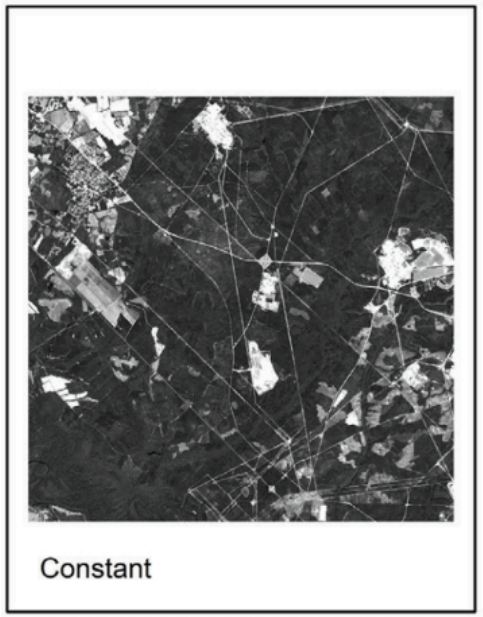
Harmonic Regression for Change Detection

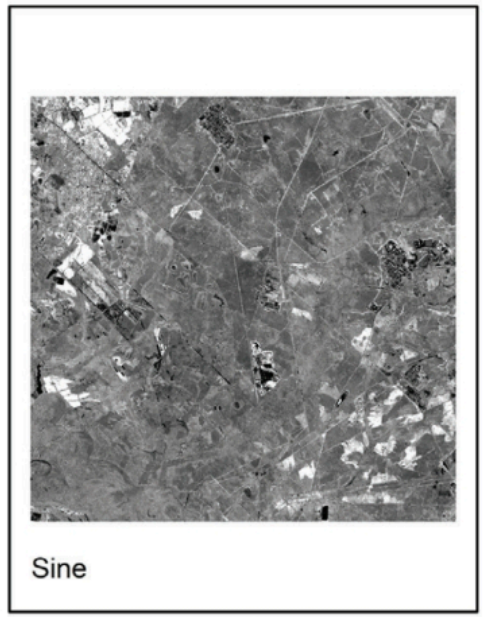
- **Models Seasonal Trends:**

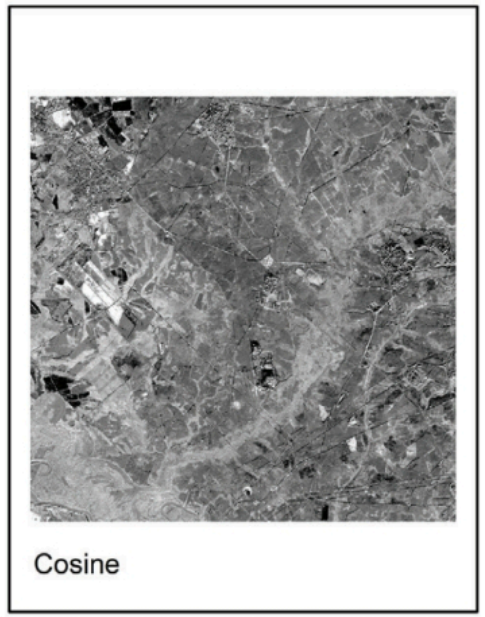
$$\hat{\rho}_x = a_0 + a_1 \cos\left(\frac{2\pi}{T}x\right) + a_2 \sin\left(\frac{2\pi}{T}x\right)$$

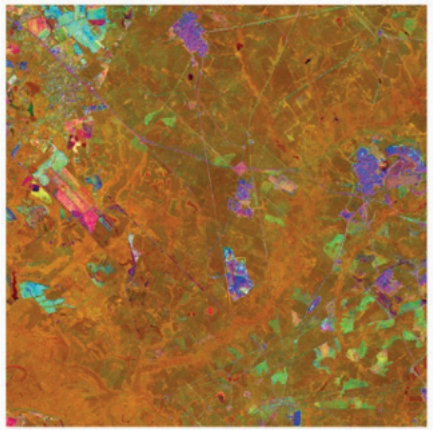
- Note that you can add new bases for different periods (months, seasons, weeks, etc)



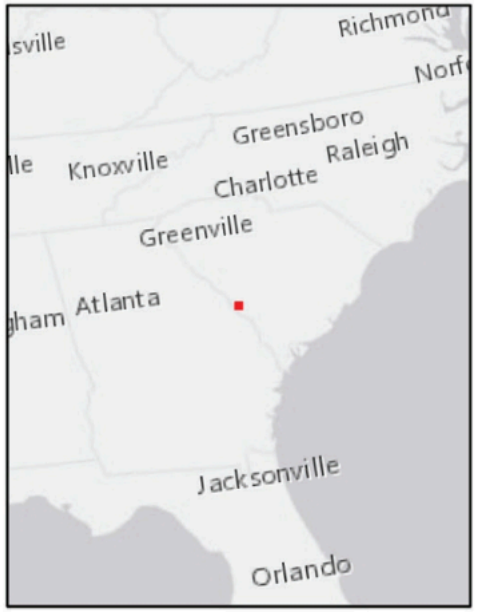

Constant


Sine


Cosine


RGB (Cosine, Sine, Constant)





Harmonic Basis and Fourier Transform

- **Fourier Series**: Generalizes harmonic regression by capturing multiple frequencies.

$$\hat{\rho}_x = a_0 + \sum_{k=1}^{N} \left(a_k \cos\left(\frac{2\pi k}{T} x\right) + b_k \sin\left(\frac{2\pi k}{T} x\right) \right)$$

- **Fourier Transform**: Decomposes signals into sine and cosine functions.
- **Fast Fourier Transform (FFT)** computes the discrete Fourier transform efficiently in $O(N \log N)$; it does not solve general least-squares regression coefficients.
- **Relation to Harmonic Regression**:
  - Harmonic regression approximates with a single frequency.
  - Fourier transform reveals all significant frequencies in data.

Why Average the Residuals?

A slightly low NDVI value could be measurement noise. Several low values in succession are stronger evidence of a persistent shift.

1. Fit the expected seasonal cycle using a stable reference period.
2. Calculate residuals $e_t = y_t - \hat{y}_t$: observed minus expected NDVI.
3. Average recent residuals to detect a sustained departure without treating the seasonal cycle itself as disturbance.

An **exponentially weighted moving average (EWMA)** keeps this running history with a single number.

EWMA: Recent Evidence Gets More Weight

$$z_t = \lambda e_t + (1-\lambda) z_{t-1}, \qquad 0 < \lambda \leq 1$$

e_t is the newest residual; z_t is the smoothed residual. Start at the baseline mean, $z_0 = 0$.

With $\lambda = 0.2$, each update uses 20% new evidence and 80% previous history. Residuals receive weights $0.2, 0.16, 0.128, \ldots$ as they age: the weights decay geometrically.

If residuals remain -0.10, the first three averages are -0.020, -0.036, and -0.0488. Repeated departures accumulate evidence.

Smaller λ smooths more and responds more slowly. At $\lambda = 1$, there is no smoothing.

Coming Next: Monitoring With Control Charts

Coming next: smooth the seasonal-model residuals with EWMA, set control limits, and interpret the forest-thinning example.

- **Purpose**: Monitor changes in time series data, such as vegetation or land cover.
- **Types of Control Charts**:
  - **EWMA (Exponentially Weighted Moving Average)**: Detects small, gradual shifts.
  - **Shewhart X-bar Chart**: Detects large, abrupt shifts.

The next few slides go into more detail.

EWMA Control Charts with Tolerance Bands

- Monitor the smoothed residual z_t rather than the raw seasonal measurement.

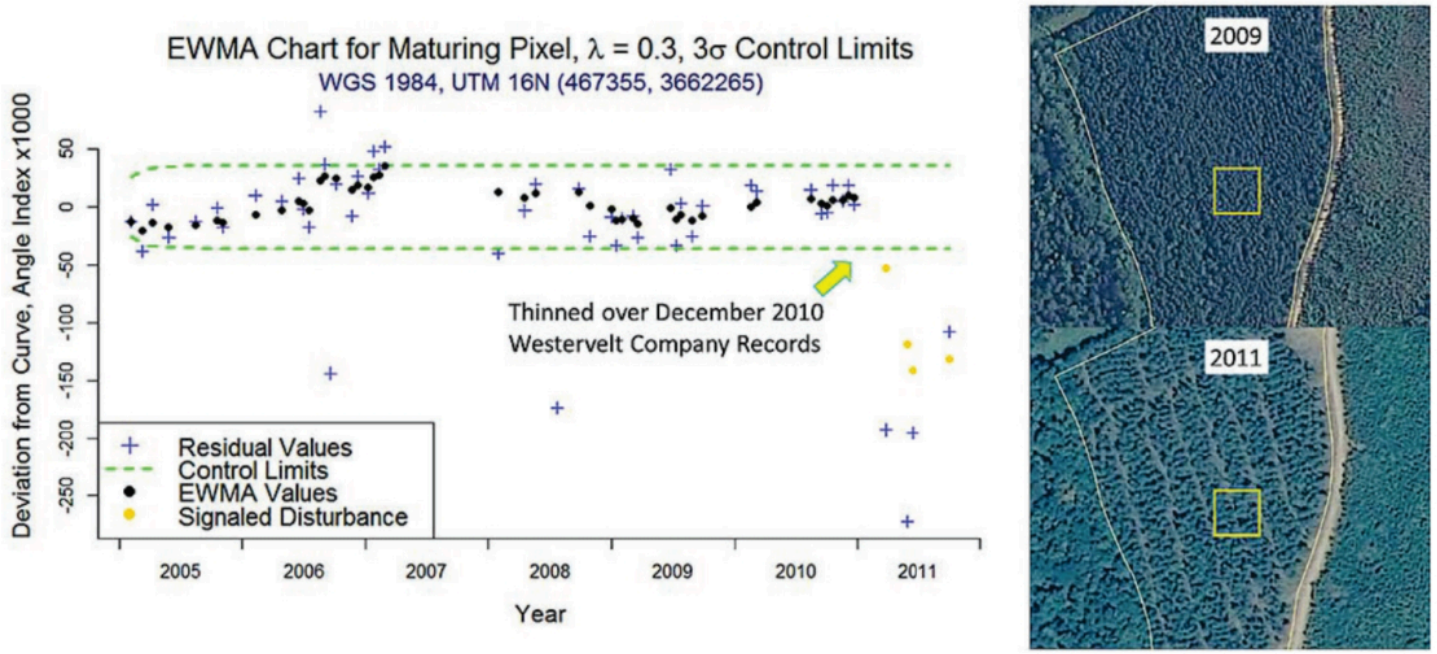
$$z_t = \lambda e_t + (1 - \lambda) z_{t-1}$$

- First fit seasonality, calculate residuals, and monitor those residuals.
- **Control Limits (Tolerance Bands)**:
  - Define acceptable variation range.
  - Persistent departures can signal small or gradual shifts as well as abrupt disturbances.

Applications

- **Anomaly Detection**: Highlights abrupt shifts, such as unexpected environmental changes.
- **Preprocessing for Trend Analysis**: Filters noise to stabilize data for further analysis.

Figure 15.7: EWMA Detects Forest Thinning



Blue crosses: seasonal-model residuals. Black points: EWMA, $\lambda = 0.3$. Green dashed lines: 3σ control limits. Yellow points: signaled disturbance.

After thinning in **December 2010**, repeated negative residuals pull the EWMA below the lower limit. The yellow boxes locate the same pixel in the 2009 and 2011 NAIP images.

Vertical axis: deviation from the fitted curve, angle index multiplied by 1000, not raw NDVI. Source: Brooks et al. (2014), textbook Figure 15.7.

Notebook: Compare Two Change Maps

Run the Landsat change detection demo in Colab

View the notebook as slides

Compare a robust NIR-difference threshold with a top-5% CVA ranking. Why must the latter select pixels even when no real land-cover change occurred?

Summary of Change Detection in Remote Sensing

- Change detection supports environmental and urban planning.
- **Bitemporal**: Suitable for abrupt changes.
- **Multitemporal**: Captures long-term trends.
- Increasing data availability enhances capability.